

Linear Regression, Logistic Regression and Nearest Neighbors

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Linear Regression

Regression

Linear Regression

- Regression refers to a set of methods for modeling the relationship between one or more independent variables and a dependent variable
- Linear regression
 - The simplest and most popular among the standard tools for regression

Assumptions of Linear Regression

Linear Regression

- Linearity assumption
 - The relationship between the independent variables x and the dependent variable y is linear
 - We can express y can as a **weighted sum** of the elements in x , given some noise on the observations

Linear Model

Linear Regression

- $\hat{y} = w_1 * x^1 + w_2 * x^2 + \dots + w_m * x^m + \mathbf{b}$
 - $W = w_1, w_2, \dots, w_m$
 - We can organize W as column or row matrix
- Dot product form (single sample prediction)
 - $\hat{y} = xW^T + b$
- Matrix vector product form (n samples prediction – all at once)
 - $\hat{Y} = XW^T + b$

The Bias Term

Linear Regression

- The bias term plays a role in the expressivity of the model
 - It allows the model to fit not only the data points that **pass through the origin but also those that do not**
 - It enables the model to capture and represent more complex relationships between the features and the target variable
 - [Animated Gif](#)

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The Bias Term

Linear Regression

- Putting the bias into the parameter matrix w_i
 - We can subsume the bias b into the parameter matrix W by appending a column to the design matrix consisting of all **ones**

X		
1.69	10.7	1
1.85	14.5	1
2.67	20.3	1
....		...
1.62	6.1	1
1.11	4.0	1

Y (observable)
5.4
3.2
7.1
.
9.1
8.7

X		
1.33	8.7	1
2.78	3.5	1
2.29	7.3	1
....		...
1.62	9.1	1
2.15	10.0	1

$\hat{Y}$ (unseen)
?
?
?
.
?
?

Least Squares

Problem Definition

Least Squares

- How can we discover W (and b) that minimizes the total loss across all training examples?

- Formally: $W^*, b^* = \operatorname{argmin} \mathcal{L}(W, b) \Rightarrow \frac{1}{n} \sum_{i=1}^n \frac{1}{2} (\overbrace{x_i W^T + b}^{\hat{y}} - y_i)^2$
- Here $\mathcal{L}(\cdot)$ means a loss function

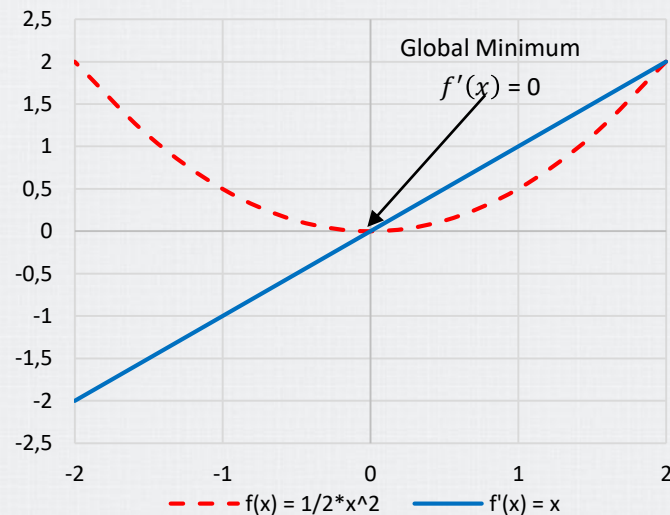
- Techniques
 - Analytical Solution (Ordinary Least Squares – OLS)
 - Gradient-Based Optimization

Analytical Solution

Least Squares

- $\mathcal{L}(W) = \|XW^T - Y\|_2^2$
 - The loss across all training samples
- $\nabla_w \mathcal{L}(W) = 2X^T(XW^T - Y) = 0$
 - We set the gradient to zero to find the points where the loss function reaches the minimum

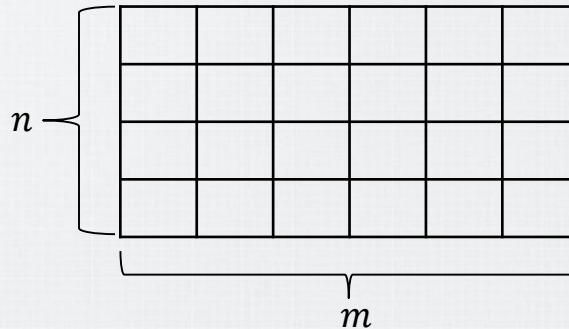
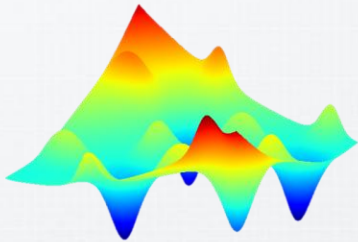
$$W^* = \underbrace{(X^T X)^{-1} X^T}_{\text{The pseudoinverse of } X} Y$$



Analytical Solution

Least Squares

- Problems
 - It does not work for complex (non-convex – multiple local optima) problems
- The sample size problem (a.k.a zero determinant or singularity)
 - The number of samples is smaller than the number of features ($n < m$)



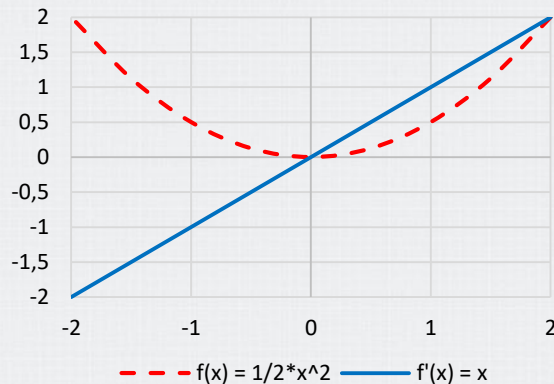
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Gradient Descent

Least Squares

- The gradient is useful for minimizing a function
 - It tells us how to change x in order to make a small improvement in y
- We can reduce $f(x)$ by moving x in small steps with **opposite sign of the gradient**
- The key consists of **iteratively** reducing the error by updating the parameters (weights) in the direction that incrementally lowers the loss function
 - **Gradient Descent**



Gradient Descent

Least Squares

- Learning rate (η)
 - Positive scalar determining the size of the step
 - The rate of learning
- Convergence
 - Run for a defined number of iterations (**epochs**)
 - Stop when the loss does not decrease (early stop)

Gradient Descent Algorithm

$W \leftarrow$ Random values

While not converged do

for each $w_i \in W$ do

$$w_i \leftarrow w_i - \eta \frac{\partial}{\partial w_i} \mathcal{L}(W)$$

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Gradient Descent

Least Squares

- The Gradient Descent takes the derivative of the loss function
 - It computes the **average of the losses** over every single example ($x \in X$)
- In practice, this can be extremely slow and memory costly
 - We must pass over the entire dataset before making a single update
 - The problem is compounded if n is larger than the processor's memory size

Stochastic Gradient Descent (SGD)

Least Squares

- Stochastic Gradient Descent randomly selects a small number (**batch size** – β) of training examples at each step t , and updates according to

$$\mathbf{W} \leftarrow \mathbf{W} - \eta \frac{1}{|\beta|} \sum_{j=\beta_t}^n \frac{\partial}{\partial \mathbf{W}} \mathcal{L}^j(\mathbf{W})$$

Stochastic Gradient Descent Algorithm

$\mathbf{W} \leftarrow$ Random values

While not converged do

 for each $\mathbf{w}_i \in \mathbf{W}$ do

$$\mathbf{w}_i \leftarrow \mathbf{w}_i - \eta \frac{1}{|\beta|} \sum_{j=\beta_t}^n \frac{\partial}{\partial \mathbf{w}_i} \mathcal{L}^j(\mathbf{W})$$

Logistic Regression

Introduction

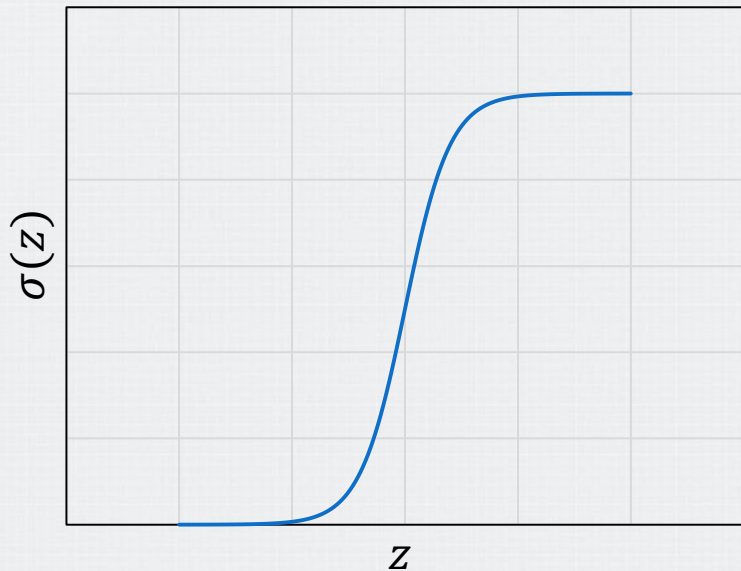
Logistic Regression

- How can we learn a linear classification model instead of a regression model?
- A naïve solution is passing the linear function xW^T through a threshold function (th)
 - $$\begin{cases} \hat{y} = 1 & \text{if } xW^T \geq th \\ \hat{y} = 0, & \text{otherwise} \end{cases}$$
 - **Hard threshold**
- Despite simple, the hard nature of the threshold causes some problems
 - The optimization function is not differentiable
 - The linear classifier is always fully confident (0 or 1), even near the decision boundary; ideally, it should mark some cases as uncertain

Problem Definition

Logistic Regression

- To learn a linear classification model, we soften the threshold function—approximating the hard threshold with a continuous, differentiable function
- Logistic function (a.k.a sigmoid – $\sigma(\cdot)$)
 - $Logistic(xW^T) = \frac{1}{1+e^{-xW^T}}$
 - $\sigma(z) = \frac{1}{1+e^{-z}}$
- This modeling approach defines a soft boundary, assigning probability 0.5 at the center and approaching 0 or 1 away from it



Logistic Regression Classifier

Logistic Regression

- Because of the **nonlinearity** of the sigmoid function, we cannot solve directly
 - There is no easy closed-form solution to find the optimal value of W
- Fortunately, we can apply the gradient descent optimization
 - The derivative of $\sigma(z) = \frac{1}{1+e^{-z}}$ is $\sigma'(z) = \sigma(z)(1 - \sigma(z))$

Gradient Descent Algorithm

$W \leftarrow$ Random values

While not converged do

for each $w_i \in W$ do

$$w_i \leftarrow w_i - \eta \frac{\partial}{\partial w_i} \mathcal{L}(W)$$

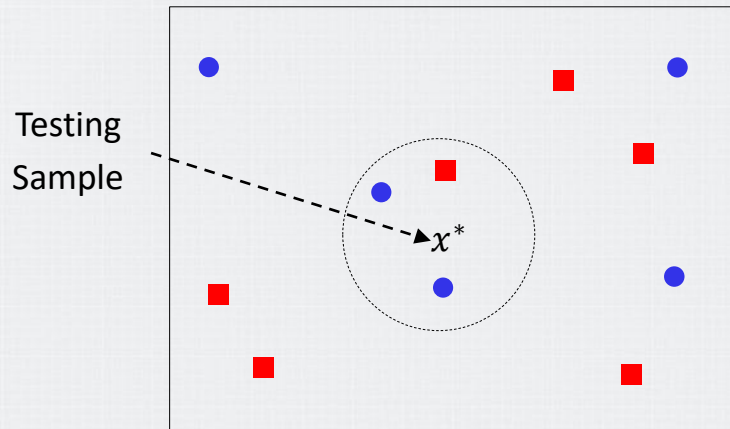
$\mathcal{L}$	Update ($\hat{y} = \sigma(xW^T)$)
L_2	$w_i \leftarrow w_i - \eta(\mathbf{y} - \hat{\mathbf{y}})\hat{\mathbf{y}}(1 - \hat{\mathbf{y}})x$
Cross-entropy	$w_i \leftarrow w_i - \eta(\hat{\mathbf{y}} - \mathbf{y})x$

Nearest Neighbors

Introduction

Nearest Neighbors

- A very simple classifier that works surprisingly well on many problems
- The nearest neighbor classifier assigns an instance (testing sample x^*) to the class most heavily represented among its neighbors
- It leverages the idea that the more similar the instances, the more likely it is that they belong to the same class

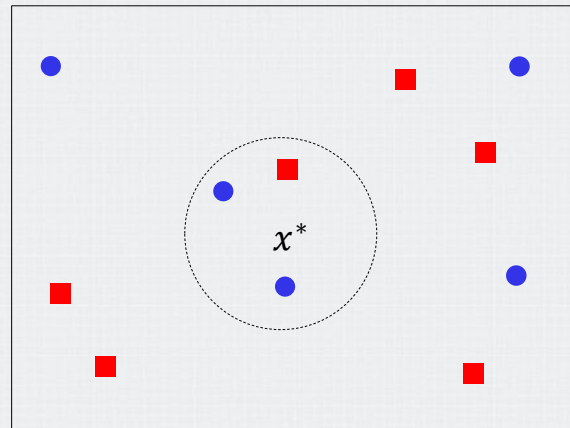


Overview

Nearest Neighbors

- Requirements
 - A positive integer k , a set of labeled samples (training data)
 - A metric to measure *closeness* (e.g., Euclidean or cosine)
- For a given unlabeled example x^* , find the k closest labeled examples in the training data set (nearest neighbor search) and assign $\hat{y}$ to the most frequent class among the k neighbors

Testing
Sample



Overview

Nearest Neighbors

- Assuming X^{NN} as the set of k nearest neighbors of x_i
 - $\Pr(Y = \text{class } j \mid X = x_i) = \frac{1}{k} \sum_{i \in X^{NN}} I(y_i = \text{class } j)$
 - I stands for the indicator function $\begin{cases} 1 & \text{if } y_i = \text{class } j \\ 0, & \text{otherwise} \end{cases}$
 - Observe that it is predicting the mode of the labels among the k nearest neighbors
- For regression
 - $\hat{y} = \frac{1}{k} \sum_{i \in X^{NN}} y_i$

Practical Issues

Nearest Neighbors

- Contrary to other learning algorithms that allow discarding the training data after the model is built, k NN keeps **all training examples in memory**
 - We can speed up the NN search using k-d trees
- The parameter k plays a role on the k NN classifier
 - With $k = 1$, the training error rate is 0. Low bias but very high variance
 - As k grows we have low-variance but high-bias
 - To avoid ties on binary classification, a common practice is assigning k an odd number
- Highly susceptible to the curse of dimensionality

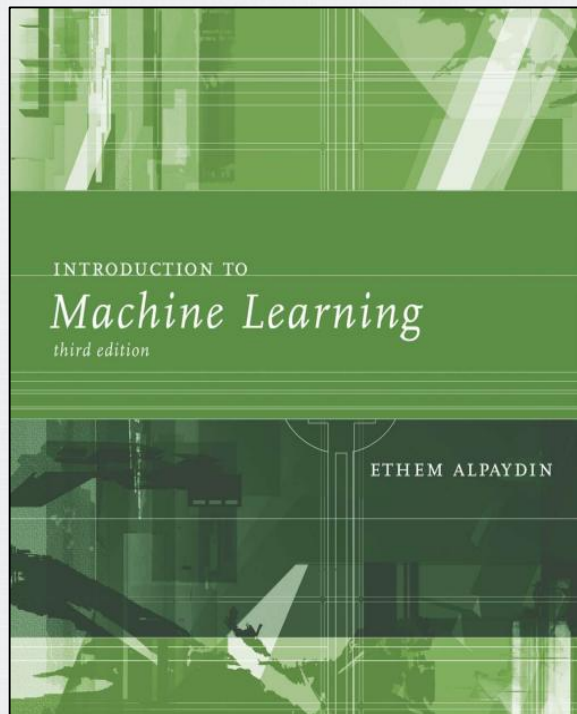
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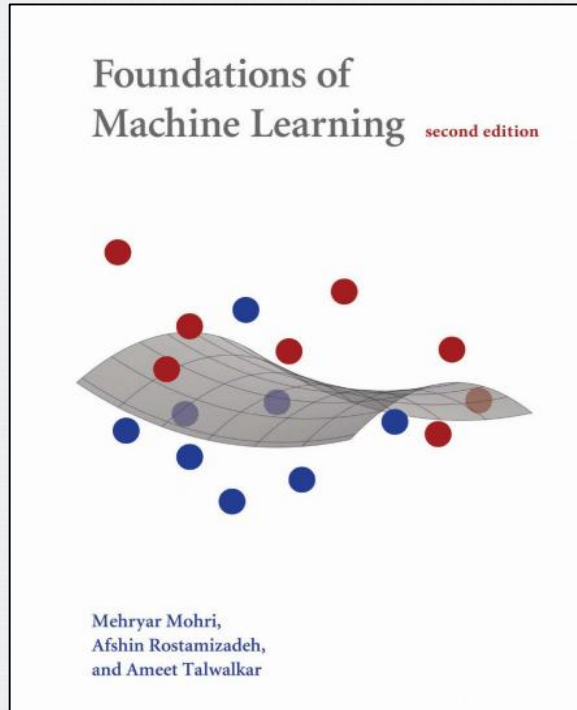
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- INTRODUCTION TO Machine Learning
 - Chapter 8
 - 8.4 Nonparametric Classification
 - Chapter 10
 - 10.5 Parametric Discrimination Revisited
 - 10.7 Logistic Discrimination



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- Foundations of Machine Learning
 - Chapter 13
 - 13.7 Logistic regression



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- The Hundred-Page Machine Learning
 - Chapter 3
 - 3.2 Logistic Regression
 - 3.5 k-Nearest Neighbors

